

```

TREE-SUCCESSOR( $x$ )
1  if  $x.right \neq \text{NIL}$ 
2      return TREE-MINIMUM( $x.right$ ) // leftmost node in right subtree
3  else // find the lowest ancestor of  $x$  whose left child is an ancestor of  $x$ 
4       $y = x.p$ 
5      while  $y \neq \text{NIL}$  and  $x == y.right$ 
6           $x = y$ 
7           $y = y.p$ 
8      return  $y$ 

```

left child is also an ancestor of x . In Figure 12.2(d), the successor of the node with key 13 is the node with key 15. To find y , go up the tree from x until you encounter either the root or a node that is the left child of its parent. Lines 4–8 of TREE-SUCCESSOR handle this case.

The running time of TREE-SUCCESSOR on a tree of height h is $O(h)$, since it either follows a simple path up the tree or follows a simple path down the tree. The procedure TREE-PREDECESSOR, which is symmetric to TREE-SUCCESSOR, also runs in $O(h)$ time.

In summary, we have proved the following theorem.

Theorem 12.2

The dynamic-set operations SEARCH, MINIMUM, MAXIMUM, SUCCESSOR, and PREDECESSOR can be implemented so that each one runs in $O(h)$ time on a binary search tree of height h . ■

Exercises

12.2-1

You are searching for the number 363 in a binary search tree containing numbers between 1 and 1000. Which of the following sequences *cannot* be the sequence of nodes examined?

- a. 2, 252, 401, 398, 330, 344, 397, 363.
- b. 924, 220, 911, 244, 898, 258, 362, 363.
- c. 925, 202, 911, 240, 912, 245, 363.
- d. 2, 399, 387, 219, 266, 382, 381, 278, 363.
- e. 935, 278, 347, 621, 299, 392, 358, 363.

12.2-2

Write recursive versions of TREE-MINIMUM and TREE-MAXIMUM.

12.2-3

Write the TREE-PREDECESSOR procedure.

12.2-4

Professor Kilmer claims to have discovered a remarkable property of binary search trees. Suppose that the search for key k in a binary search tree ends up at a leaf. Consider three sets: A , the keys to the left of the search path; B , the keys on the search path; and C , the keys to the right of the search path. Professor Kilmer claims that any three keys $a \in A$, $b \in B$, and $c \in C$ must satisfy $a \leq b \leq c$. Give a smallest possible counterexample to the professor's claim.

12.2-5

Show that if a node in a binary search tree has two children, then its successor has no left child and its predecessor has no right child.

12.2-6

Consider a binary search tree T whose keys are distinct. Show that if the right subtree of a node x in T is empty and x has a successor y , then y is the lowest ancestor of x whose left child is also an ancestor of x . (Recall that every node is its own ancestor.)

12.2-7

An alternative method of performing an inorder tree walk of an n -node binary search tree finds the minimum element in the tree by calling TREE-MINIMUM and then making $n - 1$ calls to TREE-SUCCESSOR. Prove that this algorithm runs in $\Theta(n)$ time.

12.2-8

Prove that no matter what node you start at in a height- h binary search tree, k successive calls to TREE-SUCCESSOR take $O(k + h)$ time.

12.2-9

Let T be a binary search tree whose keys are distinct, let x be a leaf node, and let y be its parent. Show that $y.key$ is either the smallest key in T larger than $x.key$ or the largest key in T smaller than $x.key$.

12.3 Insertion and deletion

The operations of insertion and deletion cause the dynamic set represented by a binary search tree to change. The data structure must be modified to reflect this change, but in such a way that the binary-search-tree property continues to hold. We'll see that modifying the tree to insert a new element is relatively straightforward, but deleting a node from a binary search tree is more complicated.

Insertion

The TREE-INSERT procedure inserts a new node into a binary search tree. The procedure takes a binary search tree T and a node z for which $z.key$ has already been filled in, $z.left = \text{NIL}$, and $z.right = \text{NIL}$. It modifies T and some of the attributes of z so as to insert z into an appropriate position in the tree.

```

TREE-INSERT( $T, z$ )
1   $x = T.root$            // node being compared with  $z$ 
2   $y = \text{NIL}$              //  $y$  will be parent of  $z$ 
3  while  $x \neq \text{NIL}$       // descend until reaching a leaf
4       $y = x$ 
5      if  $z.key < x.key$ 
6           $x = x.left$ 
7      else  $x = x.right$ 
8   $z.p = y$                // found the location—insert  $z$  with parent  $y$ 
9  if  $y == \text{NIL}$ 
10      $T.root = z$          // tree  $T$  was empty
11 elseif  $z.key < y.key$ 
12      $y.left = z$ 
13 else  $y.right = z$ 

```

Figure 12.3 shows how TREE-INSERT works. Just like the procedures TREE-SEARCH and ITERATIVE-TREE-SEARCH, TREE-INSERT begins at the root of the tree and the pointer x traces a simple path downward looking for a NIL to replace with the input node z . The procedure maintains the *trailing pointer* y as the parent of x . After initialization, the **while** loop in lines 3–7 causes these two pointers to move down the tree, going left or right depending on the comparison of $z.key$ with $x.key$, until x becomes NIL. This NIL occupies the position where node z will go. More precisely, this NIL is a *left* or *right* attribute of the node that will become z 's parent, or it is $T.root$ if tree T is currently empty. The procedure needs the

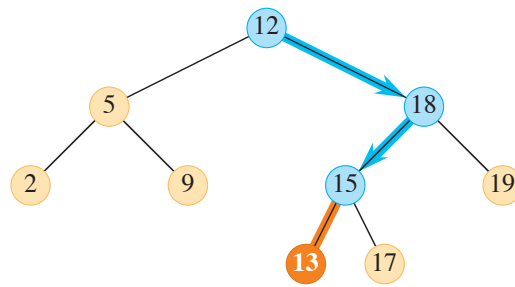


Figure 12.3 Inserting a node with key 13 into a binary search tree. The simple path from the root down to the position where the node is inserted is shown in blue. The new node and the link to its parent are highlighted in orange.

trailing pointer y , because by the time it finds the NIL where z belongs, the search has proceeded one step beyond the node that needs to be changed. Lines 8–13 set the pointers that cause z to be inserted.

Like the other primitive operations on search trees, the procedure TREE-INSERT runs in $O(h)$ time on a tree of height h .

Deletion

The overall strategy for deleting a node z from a binary search tree T has three basic cases and, as we'll see, one of the cases is a bit tricky.

- If z has no children, then simply remove it by modifying its parent to replace z with NIL as its child.
- If z has just one child, then elevate that child to take z 's position in the tree by modifying z 's parent to replace z by z 's child.
- If z has two children, find z 's successor y —which must belong to z 's right subtree—and move y to take z 's position in the tree. The rest of z 's original right subtree becomes y 's new right subtree, and z 's left subtree becomes y 's new left subtree. Because y is z 's successor, it cannot have a left child, and y 's original right child moves into y 's original position, with the rest of y 's original right subtree following automatically. This case is the tricky one because, as we'll see, it matters whether y is z 's right child.

The procedure for deleting a given node z from a binary search tree T takes as arguments pointers to T and z . It organizes its cases a bit differently from the three cases outlined previously by considering the four cases shown in Figure 12.4.

- If z has no left child, then as in part (a) of the figure, replace z by its right child, which may or may not be NIL. When z 's right child is NIL, this case deals with

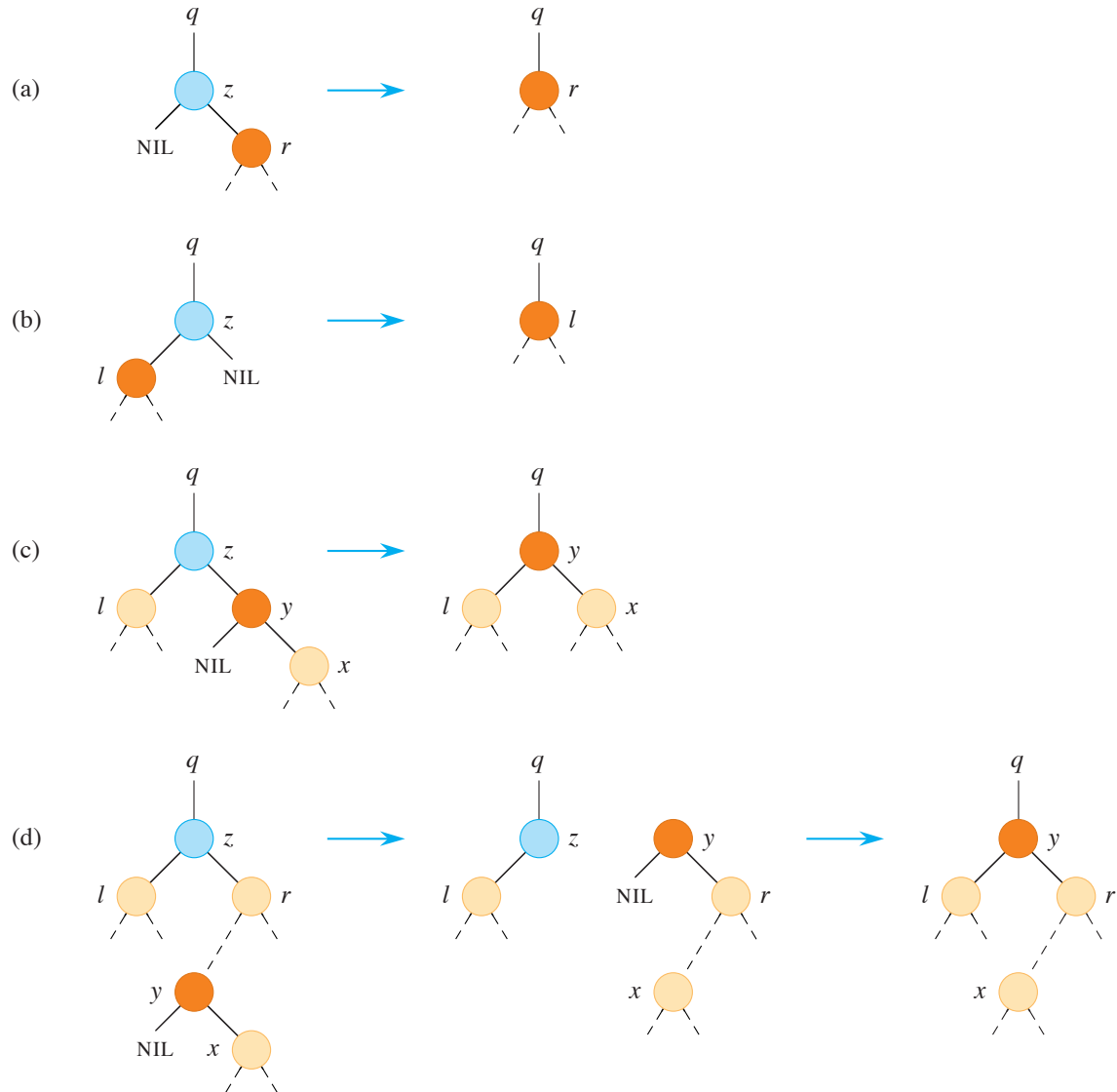


Figure 12.4 Deleting a node z , in blue, from a binary search tree. Node z may be the root, a left child of node q , or a right child of q . The node that will replace node z in its position in the tree is colored orange. **(a)** Node z has no left child. Replace z by its right child r , which may or may not be NIL. **(b)** Node z has a left child l but no right child. Replace z by l . **(c)** Node z has two children. Its left child is node l , its right child is its successor y (which has no left child), and y 's right child is node x . Replace z by y , updating y 's left child to become l , but leaving x as y 's right child. **(d)** Node z has two children (left child l and right child r), and its successor $y \neq r$ lies within the subtree rooted at r . First replace y by its own right child x , and set y to be r 's parent. Then set y to be q 's child and the parent of l .

the situation in which z has no children. When z 's right child is non-NIL, this case handles the situation in which z has just one child, which is its right child.

- Otherwise, if z has just one child, then that child is a left child. As in part (b) of the figure, replace z by its left child.
- Otherwise, z has both a left and a right child. Find z 's successor y , which lies in z 's right subtree and has no left child (see Exercise 12.2-5). Splice node y out of its current location and replace z by y in the tree. How to do so depends on whether y is z 's right child:
 - If y is z 's right child, then as in part (c) of the figure, replace z by y , leaving y 's right child alone.
 - Otherwise, y lies within z 's right subtree but is not z 's right child. In this case, as in part (d) of the figure, first replace y by its own right child, and then replace z by y .

As part of the process of deleting a node, subtrees need to move around within the binary search tree. The subroutine TRANSPLANT replaces one subtree as a child of its parent with another subtree. When TRANSPLANT replaces the subtree rooted at node u with the subtree rooted at node v , node u 's parent becomes node v 's parent, and u 's parent ends up having v as its appropriate child. TRANSPLANT allows v to be NIL instead of a pointer to a node.

```

TRANSPLANT( $T, u, v$ )
1  if  $u.p == \text{NIL}$ 
2       $T.root = v$ 
3  elseif  $u == u.p.left$ 
4       $u.p.left = v$ 
5  else  $u.p.right = v$ 
6  if  $v \neq \text{NIL}$ 
7       $v.p = u.p$ 

```

Here is how TRANSPLANT works. Lines 1–2 handle the case in which u is the root of T . Otherwise, u is either a left child or a right child of its parent. Lines 3–4 take care of updating $u.p.left$ if u is a left child, and line 5 updates $u.p.right$ if u is a right child. Because v may be NIL, lines 6–7 update $v.p$ only if v is non-NIL. The procedure TRANSPLANT does not attempt to update $v.left$ and $v.right$. Doing so, or not doing so, is the responsibility of TRANSPLANT's caller.

The procedure TREE-DELETE on the facing page uses TRANSPLANT to delete node z from binary search tree T . It executes the four cases as follows. Lines 1–2 handle the case in which node z has no left child (Figure 12.4(a)), and lines 3–4

handle the case in which z has a left child but no right child (Figure 12.4(b)). Lines 5–12 deal with the remaining two cases, in which z has two children. Line 5 finds node y , which is the successor of z . Because z has a nonempty right subtree, its successor must be the node in that subtree with the smallest key; hence the call to $\text{TREE-MINIMUM}(z.\text{right})$. As we noted before, y has no left child. The procedure needs to splice y out of its current location and replace z by y in the tree. If y is z 's right child (Figure 12.4(c)), then lines 10–12 replace z as a child of its parent by y and replace y 's left child by z 's left child. Node y retains its right child (x in Figure 12.4(c)), and so no change to $y.\text{right}$ needs to occur. If y is not z 's right child (Figure 12.4(d)), then two nodes have to move. Lines 7–9 replace y as a child of its parent by y 's right child (x in Figure 12.4(c)) and make z 's right child (r in the figure) become y 's right child instead. Finally, lines 10–12 replace z as a child of its parent by y and replace y 's left child by z 's left child.

```

TREE-DELETE( $T, z$ )
1  if  $z.\text{left} == \text{NIL}$ 
2      TRANSPLANT( $T, z, z.\text{right}$ )           // replace  $z$  by its right child
3  elseif  $z.\text{right} == \text{NIL}$ 
4      TRANSPLANT( $T, z, z.\text{left}$ )           // replace  $z$  by its left child
5  else  $y = \text{TREE-MINIMUM}(z.\text{right})$       //  $y$  is  $z$ 's successor
6      if  $y \neq z.\text{right}$                   // is  $y$  farther down the tree?
7          TRANSPLANT( $T, y, y.\text{right}$ )    // replace  $y$  by its right child
8           $y.\text{right} = z.\text{right}$            //  $z$ 's right child becomes
9           $y.\text{right}.p = y$                 //  $y$ 's right child
10         TRANSPLANT( $T, z, y$ )           // replace  $z$  by its successor  $y$ 
11          $y.\text{left} = z.\text{left}$              // and give  $z$ 's left child to  $y$ ,
12          $y.\text{left}.p = y$                 // which had no left child

```

Each line of TREE-DELETE , including the calls to TRANSPLANT , takes constant time, except for the call to TREE-MINIMUM in line 5. Thus, TREE-DELETE runs in $O(h)$ time on a tree of height h .

In summary, we have proved the following theorem.

Theorem 12.3

The dynamic-set operations INSERT and DELETE can be implemented so that each one runs in $O(h)$ time on a binary search tree of height h . ■

Exercises**12.3-1**

Give a recursive version of the TREE-INSERT procedure.

12.3-2

Suppose that you construct a binary search tree by repeatedly inserting distinct values into the tree. Argue that the number of nodes examined in searching for a value in the tree is 1 plus the number of nodes examined when the value was first inserted into the tree.

12.3-3

You can sort a given set of n numbers by first building a binary search tree containing these numbers (using TREE-INSERT repeatedly to insert the numbers one by one) and then printing the numbers by an inorder tree walk. What are the worst-case and best-case running times for this sorting algorithm?

12.3-4

When TREE-DELETE calls TRANSPLANT, under what circumstances can the parameter v of TRANSPLANT be NIL?

12.3-5

Is the operation of deletion “commutative” in the sense that deleting x and then y from a binary search tree leaves the same tree as deleting y and then x ? Argue why it is or give a counterexample.

12.3-6

Suppose that instead of each node x keeping the attribute $x.p$, pointing to x 's parent, it keeps $x.succ$, pointing to x 's successor. Give pseudocode for TREE-SEARCH, TREE-INSERT, and TREE-DELETE on a binary search tree T using this representation. These procedures should operate in $O(h)$ time, where h is the height of the tree T . You may assume that all keys in the binary search tree are distinct. (*Hint:* You might wish to implement a subroutine that returns the parent of a node.)

12.3-7

When node z in TREE-DELETE has two children, you can choose node y to be its predecessor rather than its successor. What other changes to TREE-DELETE are necessary if you do so? Some have argued that a fair strategy, giving equal priority to predecessor and successor, yields better empirical performance. How might TREE-DELETE be minimally changed to implement such a fair strategy?

Problems
12-1 Binary search trees with equal keys

Equal keys pose a problem for the implementation of binary search trees.

- a.* What is the asymptotic performance of TREE-INSERT when used to insert n items with identical keys into an initially empty binary search tree?

Consider changing TREE-INSERT to test whether $z.key = x.key$ before line 5 and to test whether $z.key = y.key$ before line 11. If equality holds, implement one of the following strategies. For each strategy, find the asymptotic performance of inserting n items with identical keys into an initially empty binary search tree. (The strategies are described for line 5, which compares the keys of z and x . Substitute y for x to arrive at the strategies for line 11.)

- b.* Keep a boolean flag $x.b$ at node x , and set x to either $x.left$ or $x.right$ based on the value of $x.b$, which alternates between FALSE and TRUE each time TREE-INSERT visits x while inserting a node with the same key as x .
- c.* Keep a list of nodes with equal keys at x , and insert z into the list.
- d.* Randomly set x to either $x.left$ or $x.right$. (Give the worst-case performance and informally derive the expected running time.)

12-2 Radix trees

Given two strings $a = a_0a_1 \dots a_p$ and $b = b_0b_1 \dots b_q$, where each a_i and each b_j belongs to some ordered set of characters, we say that string a is *lexicographically less than* string b if either

1. there exists an integer j , where $0 \leq j \leq \min\{p, q\}$, such that $a_i = b_i$ for all $i = 0, 1, \dots, j-1$ and $a_j < b_j$, or
2. $p < q$ and $a_i = b_i$ for all $i = 0, 1, \dots, p$.

For example, if a and b are bit strings, then $10100 < 10110$ by rule 1 (letting $j = 3$) and $10100 < 101000$ by rule 2. This ordering is similar to that used in English-language dictionaries.

The *radix tree* data structure shown in Figure 12.5 (also known as a *trie*) stores the bit strings 1011, 10, 011, 100, and 0. When searching for a key $a = a_0a_1 \dots a_p$, go left at a node of depth i if $a_i = 0$ and right if $a_i = 1$. Let S be a set of distinct bit strings whose lengths sum to n . Show how to use a radix tree to sort S lexicographically in $\Theta(n)$ time. For the example in Figure 12.5, the output of the sort should be the sequence 0, 011, 10, 100, 1011.

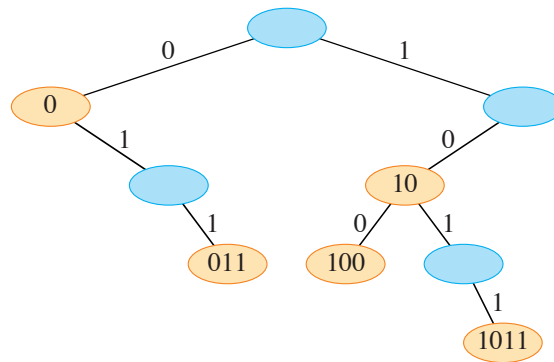


Figure 12.5 A radix tree storing the bit strings 1011, 10, 011, 100, and 0. To determine each node's key, traverse the simple path from the root to that node. There is no need, therefore, to store the keys in the nodes. The keys appear here for illustrative purposes only. Keys corresponding to blue nodes are not in the tree. Such nodes are present only to establish a path to other nodes.

12-3 Average node depth in a randomly built binary search tree

A **randomly built binary search tree** on n keys is a binary search tree created by starting with an empty tree and inserting the keys in random order, where each of the $n!$ permutations of the keys is equally likely. In this problem, you will prove that the average depth of a node in a randomly built binary search tree with n nodes is $O(\lg n)$. The technique reveals a surprising similarity between the building of a binary search tree and the execution of RANDOMIZED-QUICKSORT from Section 7.3.

Denote the depth of any node x in tree T by $d(x, T)$. Then the **total path length** $P(T)$ of a tree T is the sum, over all nodes x in T , of $d(x, T)$.

a. Argue that the average depth of a node in T is

$$\frac{1}{n} \sum_{x \in T} d(x, T) = \frac{1}{n} P(T).$$

Thus, you need to show that the expected value of $P(T)$ is $O(n \lg n)$.

b. Let T_L and T_R denote the left and right subtrees of tree T , respectively. Argue that if T has n nodes, then

$$P(T) = P(T_L) + P(T_R) + n - 1.$$

c. Let $P(n)$ denote the average total path length of a randomly built binary search tree with n nodes. Show that